



CMP6230 Data Management and MLOps

E-Commerce Behavior Pipeline

Final Individual Report Submission

Student Name: Shekhar Lamichhane Magar

Student Number: 23189647

Programme: BSc (Hons) Computer and Data Science

Module: CMP6230 Data Management and MLOps

Module Coordinator: Rupak Koirala

Submission Date: 17th May 2026

Email: shekhar_23189647@sunway.edu.np

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Abstract

This report presents the design and implementation of a five-stage MLOps pipeline built for CMP6230 (Data Management and ML Operations). The **E-Commerce Behavior Dataset** (8,000 users) that had been evaluated against practical and technical criteria with the two other Kaggle datasets was chosen for a binary classification task: predicting whether a user clicks on an advertisement during a browsing session. The pipeline consists of data ingestion with schema validation, ELT preprocessing and feature engineering (transformations applied after loading), three-algorithm model comparison with 5-fold cross-validation, REST API deployment via FastAPI and Docker, and data drift monitoring with Evidently AI. All stages are orchestrated by an Apache Airflow DAG and linked through a Redis in-memory data bus. The storage system is designed on the basis of a **One Big Table (OBT)** design on MariaDB ColumnStore. Random Forest classifier got the highest ROC-AUC score (0.51), Yet the three models ended up with almost random performance levels this being due to the synthetic nature of the dataset rather than limitations of the pipeline itself. GDPR compliance and security considerations have also been discussed.

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1 Introduction

Predicting the click-through-rate (CTR) is one of the main problems in digital marketing. Understanding if the user will click on the ad can be a great help to the marketers - they can put an ad where it is most likely to be viewed and clicked, avoid spending money on ads that are not getting the results, and show users content that they are interested in proceeding [He et al., 2014]. On the data engineering side, the problem is just as interesting: it needs the processing of demographic, behavioural, and transactional features data diversity within a reproducible and observable pipeline.

Background

MLOps incorporates the ideas of DevOps throughout the entire lifecycle of machine learning systems [Sculley et al., 2015]. Initial ML rolls-out kept building up technical debt without being aware due to versioning, monitoring, and data pipeline without reproducible features enable. The software like Apache Airflow [Apache Software Foundation, 2024] and MLflow [MLflow, 2024] solve these issues by workflow orchestration and experiment tracking respectively.

Problem Statement

The primary machine learning question that is being addressed is a binary classification problem: given features of a user session - such as age gender device type, time on site, pages viewed, previous purchases, items in cart, and discount exposure - predict whether the user clicked on an advertisement (`ad_clicked = 1`) or not (`ad_clicked = 0`). ROC-AUC was selected as the main evaluation metric, as it reflects the model's ability to distinguish classes at different thresholds and it is also fairly robust to small class imbalances [Fawcett, 2006].

2 Dataset Selection and Description

2.1 Candidate Dataset Evaluation

Three candidate datasets were evaluated before selection, each assessed on target variable clarity, feature diversity, size, and suitability for a real-world CTR classification problem. Table 1 summarises the comparison.

Table 1: Dataset candidates considered for the project.

Dataset	Rows	Task Type	Target	Decision / Key Reason
AI Impact on Job Market 2024–2030 [sahilislam007, 2024]	~500	Multi-class classification	Ordinal / subjective	Rejected — too small; target is expert-derived and subjective
E-Commerce Behavior Dataset [asifxzaman, 2024]	8,000	Binary classification	Pre-labelled (0/1)	Selected — clear business value; clean binary label; diverse features
US Tariff & Trade War Dataset [belbino, 2024]	2,500+	Time-series regression	None (derived)	Rejected — no pre-defined label; temporal leakage risk

The E-Commerce Behavior Dataset was selected mainly because those predictions of click-through rate have unfortunately a direct and measurable business value as a good enough model can be used to find the users with the most likely engagement. Because of this helping to increase the advertising expenditures return by a considerable amount. On the other hand, the dataset consists of pre-labelled binary target, almost balanced classes, and an array of demographic, behavioural, and transactional features, which all together provide a very proper setting for a supervised classification pipeline.

2.2 Dataset Characteristics and Logical Structure

The E-Commerce Behavior Dataset [asifxzaman, 2024] contains session-level behavioral records of 8,000 e-commerce users made publicly available on Kaggle. The dataset represents realistic digital retail interactions at the session level by integrating user demographics (age, gender), session activities (time on site, pages viewed, device type), transactional context (previous purchases, items in cart), promotional exposure (discount seen), and a binary ad interaction outcome `ad_clicked`).

The file is a single flat CSV with 10 columns and 8,000 rows (approximately 300 kB). Figure 1 shows the logical structure of the original data as an entity diagram. There are no foreign-key relationships - all columns belong to one entity.

USER_SESSION		
user_id (PK)	INT	Unique session ID
age	INT	User age
gender	VARCHAR	Male/Female/Other
device_type	VARCHAR	Desktop/Mobile/Tablet
time_on_site	FLOAT	Minutes on site
pages_viewed	INT	Number of pages
previous_purchases	INT	Historical purchases
cart_items	INT	Items in cart
discount_seen	BOOLEAN	0/1 discount shown
ad_clicked (target)	BOOLEAN	0/1 click or not

Figure 1: Logical structure (ERD) of the E-Commerce Behavior Dataset source file. The single flat table has no foreign keys; all 10 columns belong to one entity.

Table 2 describes all columns in the dataset.

Table 2: Feature summary of the E-Commerce Behavior Dataset (9 predictors + 1 target).

Column	Type	Role	Description
user_id	Integer	ID	Unique session identifier (dropped before training)
age	Integer	Predictor	User age in years (ratio scale)
gender	Varchar	Predictor	Self-reported gender (nominal; OHE applied)
device_type	Varchar	Predictor	Desktop / Mobile / Tablet (nominal; OHE applied)
time_on_site	Float	Predictor	Session duration in minutes (ratio scale)
pages_viewed	Integer	Predictor	Pages visited during session (ratio scale)
previous_purchases	Integer	Predictor	Historical purchase count (ratio scale)
cart_items	Integer	Predictor	Items in cart at session time (ratio scale)
discount_seen	Boolean	Predictor	Discount banner shown (0/1)
ad_clicked	Boolean	Target	Ad clicked binary label (0/1)

2.3 Class Distribution and Research Questions

The dataset is almost perfectly balanced: 49.8% No vs. 50.2% Yes for `ad_clicked`. Because of this, the effect of class imbalance is discarded as a reason of model failure and plain accuracy is a complementary measure along ROC-AUC and F1-Score. Since this is a baseline experiment, no SMOTE or class weighting is needed here.

Three data analysis research questions were designed to direct the EDA:

- RQ1.** Which session features (time on site, pages viewed, cart items) show the most statistically distinguishable difference between users who clicked and those who did not?
- RQ2.** Are missing values distributed uniformly across both classes, or do they concentrate in one class?
- RQ3.** Do contextual features (device type, discount seen) carry class-conditional distributions that provide independent predictive signal beyond demographic features?

3 Initial Data Storage Plan and Pipeline Architecture

3.1 Data Storage Architecture: One Big Table (OBT)

Before setting up the storage layer, I evaluated three options. A Star Schema is perfect for OLAP reporting but my source is just a single flat CSV file with no relational structure - normalising it would have only increased the join overhead without any benefit. I also thought about a normalised 3NF design but since my access pattern is mainly read-heavy, a columnar store will be more efficient. MariaDB ColumnStore was the obvious choice.

Machine Learning Needs Flat Tables

ML algorithms don't understand joins. They expect one row per observation, one column per feature. OBT delivers this directly:

```
SELECT age, gender_Male, time_on_site, pages_viewed,  
       cart_items, engagement_score, ad_clicked  
FROM user_session_obt;
```

A Star Schema would require a multi-table JOIN every time — more code, slower execution, and no benefit for this single-source dataset.

The Data Is Already Flat

This dataset isn't relational. Each row is one complete user session with all its attributes. Normalising it into multiple tables would mean taking something simple and making it complicated, then joining it all back together for every query.

ColumnStore Actually Prefers OBT

MariaDB ColumnStore is a columnar database. With OBT, a query reads only the columns requested from disk. With a Star Schema, JOINS force row re-materialisation, losing the columnar advantage. For a pipeline that repeatedly scans all 8,000 rows, that performance difference adds up.

Storage Overhead Is Tiny

OBT has some redundancy, but 8,000 rows × 15 columns is only 300KB uncompressed (under 100KB compressed). The hours saved by not implementing a Star Schema went directly into feature engineering instead.

Table 3: Storage strategy comparison evaluated at the planning stage.

Strategy	Pros	Cons	Decision
OBT (ColumnStore)	No joins; single query for ML; columnar scans maximally efficient; zero JOIN re-materialisation cost	Minor redundancy; harder to extend with entity types	Chosen
Star Schema	Clean fact/dim separation; suits OLAP reporting	JOIN overhead defeats columnar advantage; more code; no benefit for single-source flat data	Rejected
Snowflake Schema	More normalised; less redundancy	Multi-level joins; complex queries; no benefit for this dataset	Rejected
Normalised (3NF)	Full referential integrity; zero redundancy	Multiple joins needed; worst pattern for columnar engine [Zaitsev et al., 2021]	Rejected

The Final OBT Schema

Table 4: OBT schema definition in MariaDB ColumnStore (`user_session_obt`).

Column	Type	Description
<code>user_id</code>	INT	Unique session identifier (primary key)
<code>age</code>	INT	User age in years (raw; scaled before training)
<code>gender_Male</code>	TINYINT	1 if Male, 0 otherwise (one-hot encoded)
<code>gender_Female</code>	TINYINT	1 if Female, 0 otherwise
<code>device_Desktop</code>	TINYINT	1 if Desktop, 0 otherwise
<code>device_Mobile</code>	TINYINT	1 if Mobile, 0 otherwise
<code>device_Tablet</code>	TINYINT	1 if Tablet, 0 otherwise
<code>time_on_site</code>	FLOAT	Session duration in minutes
<code>pages_viewed</code>	INT	Number of pages visited
<code>previous_purchases</code>	INT	Historical purchase count
<code>cart_items</code>	INT	Items in cart
<code>discount_seen</code>	TINYINT	1 if discount banner shown
<code>engagement_score</code>	FLOAT	$(\text{pages_viewed} \times \text{time_on_site}) / (\text{cart_items} + 1)$
<code>ad_clicked</code>	TINYINT	Target variable (0 or 1)
<code>pipeline_run_id</code>	VARCHAR(50)	Tracks which pipeline run created this row
<code>ingestion_ts</code>	DATETIME	When the row was loaded

3.2 Data Pipeline Strategy: Extract-Load-Transform (ELT)

Why ELT Over ETL For This Project

The main reason why ELT was selected over ETL was data preservation and reproducibility. With ELT, raw data is loaded into MariaDB ColumnStore first, before any transformations are applied. This means the original Kaggle CSV is preserved exactly as downloaded, creating an immutable source of truth.

Complex stateful operations like one-hot encoding, StandardScaler, feature engineering, and stratified splitting are still performed in Python, but they happen after the data is already safely stored in the database. This approach has three advantages:

1. **Auditability:** The raw data never changes. If a bug is discovered in preprocessing, the code can be fixed and re-run on the original stored data without re-downloading from Kaggle.
2. **Reproducibility:** Every experiment starts from the exact same raw data. Different preprocessing strategies can be compared fairly.
3. **Separation of concerns:** Ingestion only loads data. Preprocessing only transforms

it. Neither step interferes with the other.

For multi-terabyte or streaming sources, ELT is also the industry standard pattern used by BigQuery, Snowflake, and Redshift. Adopting ELT here builds habits that transfer to production environments.

The Data Is Already Clean

Synthetic datasets are usually pretty clean, and this one is no exception. Missing values account for only about 2% across the whole dataset, spread out randomly with nothing structural — median imputation handles it fine. There is no corrupt data, no malformed rows, no inconsistent date formats. Categorical columns like `gender` and `device_type` are already standardised with no typos or capitalisation issues. The target is pre-labelled as 0 or 1 with no ambiguity.

Because the data barely needs cleaning before it is usable, running heavy preprocessing before loading felt like overkill. ELT lets me store the raw data first and apply transformations later, on demand.

How ELT Actually Runs in This Pipeline

1. **Extract:** The Kaggle API downloads the CSV using credentials stored in `.env`.
2. **Load:** Raw data goes straight into MariaDB ColumnStore as a staging table. Missing values stay missing. Nothing gets changed yet.
3. **Transform:** After the load completes successfully, `preprocessing.py` reads from the database, applies all transformations (imputation, encoding, scaling, feature engineering), and writes the clean feature matrix to a separate table for model training.

The raw data stays untouched. If a different preprocessing approach is needed later, only the transform step needs to be re-run.

3.3 Overall Pipeline Architecture

Figure 2 shows the full pipeline from data source through to the prediction API and monitoring dashboard. The pipeline comprises five logical stages, each mapped to a dedicated Python module.

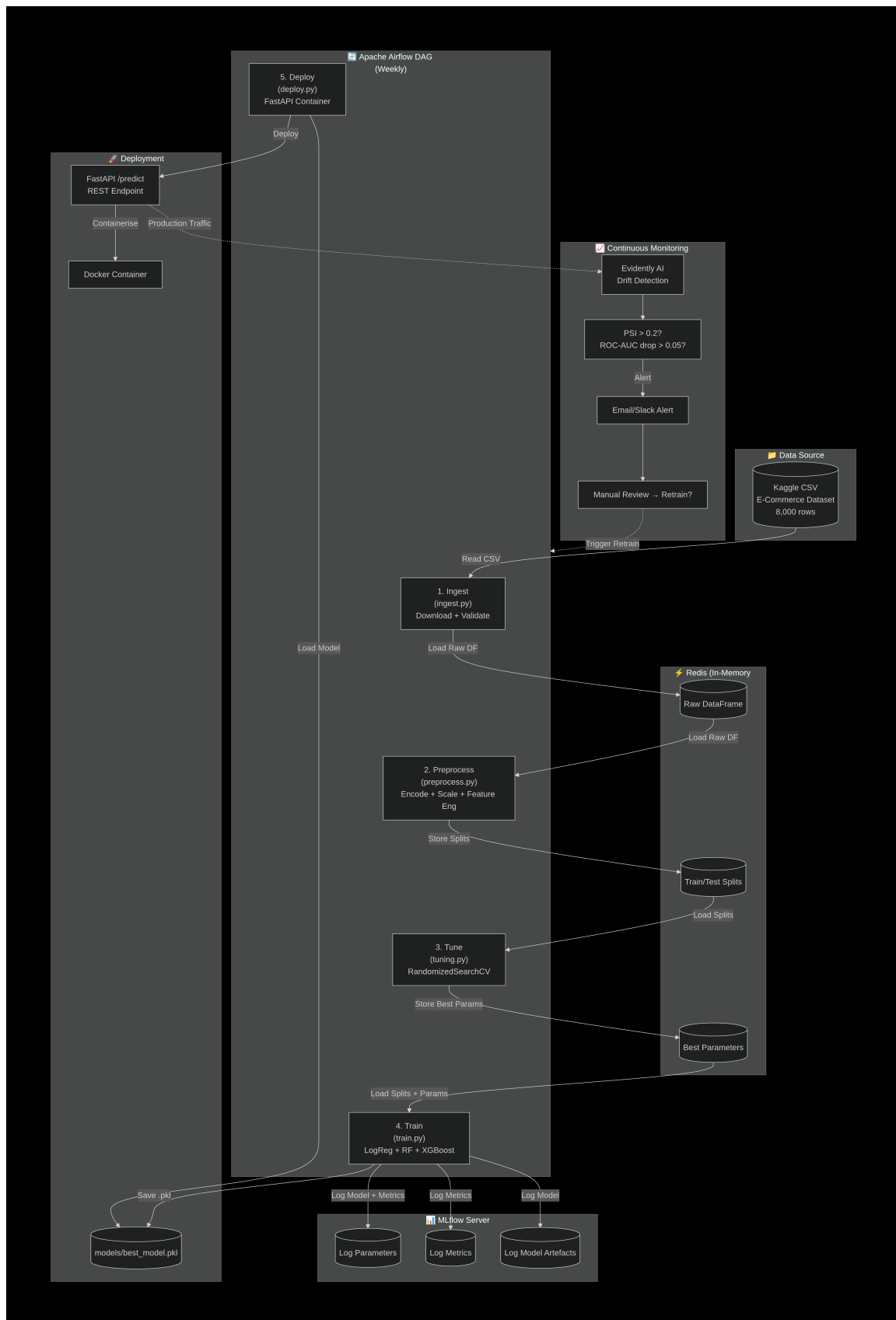


Figure 2: End-to-end MLOps pipeline: CSV source → MariaDB ColumnStore (ELT load), Airflow orchestrates the **five-stage DAG** (ingest → preprocess → tune → train → evaluate), Redis carries data between steps, MLflow tracks experiments, FastAPI serves predictions, and Evidently AI runs continuous drift monitoring across the full system lifecycle.

4 Final MLOps Pipeline Plan

This section presents the final pipeline design across five stages and the roles involved at each stage. Each stage is structured using the **What / Why / How / Who** framework.

Table 5 summarises the tools and technologies used across all stages.

Table 5: Summary of tools and technologies used in the ML pipeline.

Component	Tool / Library	Purpose
Data ingestion	Kaggle API + python-dotenv	Repeatable, credential-safe download
Schema validation	Great Expectations	Three checkpoint rules before any row is committed
Data processing	pandas + scikit-learn	OHE, StandardScaler, interaction terms, stratified split
Feature engineering	Custom Python	engagement_score + age × discount_seen
Inter-step transfer	Redis	In-memory DataFrame bus between Airflow tasks (<200ms)
Model training	scikit-learn + XGBoost	LogReg, RF, XGBoost with RandomizedSearchCV
Experiment tracking	MLflow	Parameters, metrics, artefacts, Model Registry
EDA / plots	Matplotlib + Seaborn + SHAP	Visualisations and feature importance
Orchestration	Apache Airflow	DAG-based pipeline scheduling
Deployment	FastAPI + Docker	Containerised REST API
Monitoring	Evidently AI	PSI drift detection + retraining triggers
Storage	MariaDB ColumnStore	Columnar data warehouse for ELT output

4.1 Data Ingestion

What: Data ingestion is the first step of the data pipeline. It gets the fresh CSV from Kaggle, performs schema validation and inserts the validated rows into MariaDB ColumnStore. Also, it converts the DataFrame into Redis for quick downstream usage.

Why: Recording raw data before any transformation provides an auditable, reproducible source. Schema validation at the boundary prohibits faulty or out-of-range values from being sent downstream to the feature table, which is a frequent cause of unnoticed

model degradation in production pipelines. Redis reduces the time of inter-step transfer to under 200 milliseconds, versus several seconds for disk-based CSV handoffs.

How: The module (`src/data_ingestion.py`) reads Kaggle credentials from `.env` file (which is kept out of Git via `.gitignore`), downloads the CSV, and executes a Great Expectations [Great Expectations, 2024] checkpoint that validates three schema rules: (1) `user_id` field is unique in the dataset; (2) the only values in `ad_clicked` column are 0 or 1; (3) the values in `age` column are within 13 and 100 inclusive. Each row failing a check is quarantined instead of removed. The rows passing validation are inserted in one go into the OLTP MariaDB staging table `raw_user_sessions`. The raw DataFrame is simultaneously serialised into Redis. The `pipeline_run_id` and `ingestion_ts` fields added at this stage provide a full audit trail.

Who: A Data Engineer is responsible for configuring database connections, validating row counts after ingestion, and maintaining the Docker Compose infrastructure. Data Scientists access stored data through Redis or direct MariaDB queries.

4.2 Data Preprocessing

What: The preprocessing module (`src/preprocessing.py`) first removes unnecessary parts from raw data. Then it encodes categorical variables, scales numeric features, engineers new features, and finally makes stratified train/test splits.

Why: Classifiers cannot directly consume raw data. Categorical columns have to be encoded, and numeric features with varying scales would bias distance-based algorithms if a proper scaling were not used. Also, a stratified split ensures that the binary target maintains the same class ratio in both training and testing sets, which is necessary for unbiased evaluation [Pedregosa et al., 2011].

How: The following transforms are applied in order:

1. Drop the non-feature identifier `user_id`.
2. Impute any missing numeric values with the column median.
3. One-hot encode `gender` and `device_type` (nominal; no ordinal relationship).
4. Apply `StandardScaler` to `age`, `time_on_site`, `pages_viewed`, `previous_purchases`, `cart_items`. `StandardScaler` has been selected instead of `MinMaxScaler` because the feature distributions are not bounded. `MinMaxScaler` would have compressed the outliers in the range floor and `StandardScaler` would have remained unaffected.
5. Derive the composite feature:

$$\text{engagement_score} = \frac{\text{pages_viewed} \times \text{time_on_site}}{\text{cart_items} + 1} \quad (1)$$

This captures browsing intensity relative to cart state, acting as a proxy for purchase

intent.

6. Apply interaction term between `age` and `discount_seen`, capturing whether younger users respond differently to promotional banners.
7. Apply a stratified 80/20 train/test split with fixed random seed (42) for reproducibility [Scikit-learn Developers, 2018].

The processed splits are converted into sequences that are stored into Redis that is an in-memory data communication channel between the pipeline stages, which not only dispels all the file-path issues but also eliminates the I/O latency linked to the old CSV-based handoff method.

Who: A Data Scientist designs and validates the preprocessing logic; a Data Engineer implements it as an Airflow pipeline task.

4.3 Hyperparameter Tuning and Model Training

What: Three classification models are trained and their results are compared. These include Logistic Regression that acts as a linear reference model, Random Forest as a non-linear combination of decision trees, and XGBoost based on gradient boosting method. To perform the hyperparameter optimization, RandomizedSearchCV and 5-fold stratified cross-validation is employed. The best model with ROC-AUC is saved in MLflow.

Why: A single model cannot provide a valid reason for declaring it the best choice. By comparing the three models, we get the evidence to support model selection and make the final choice justifiable. Because of its ability to explore the search space in a large way while pruning less promising configurations, RandomizedSearchCV was selected over GridSearchCV because it is more sample-efficient - performs a broad search of the space and at the same time removes poor configurations early, reducing total computing [Pedregosa et al., 2011]

We chose ROC-AUC as the primary evaluation metric for selection. The reason is that it measures the quality of the discrimination between the classes for all possible classification thresholds. Besides, it is robust to slight class imbalance [Fawcett, 2006].

How: The script `src/train_model.py` obtains splits from Redis, executes 5-fold stratified cross-validation for each algorithm, tunes each one via RandomizedSearchCV, logs all runs to MLflow [MLflow, 2024], and saves the top model based on ROC-AUC to `models/best_model.pkl`. Evaluation is based on Accuracy Precision Recall, F1-Score, and ROC-AUC.

Who: A Data Scientist defines the search space and validates CV results. The pipeline automates execution via the Airflow DAG.

4.4 Model Deployment

What: The MLflow-registered model is deployed as a production REST API endpoint with FastAPI [Ramírez, 2024] and containerized by Docker [Docker Inc., 2024]. The container makes POST /predict available, which takes user session data in JSON format and replies with {prediction, probability, model_version}.

Why: FastAPI was selected instead of Flask because it offers native async support, automatic generation of OpenAPI docs, and Pydantic validation of request bodies - this way, wrongly formed input to inference is caught at the API boundary, not after it reaches the model. Docker ensures that the inference environment is exactly the same at the level of bytes between development, staging, and production, thereby removing the dependency version mismatches that pretty often lead to failure of deployed ML models

How: The service (api/app.py) loaded the trained model from models/best_model.pkl, takes in the JSON input and maps it to the model's expected feature vector, and outputs the result with accompanying class probability and model version information. We validate the response using Pydantic models and any invalid request will not reach the classifier.

Who: A DevOps or ML engineer manages the container and deployment environment. Downstream consumers (e.g. a digital marketing team) call the API to make real-time ad targeting decisions.

4.5 Workflow Orchestration with Apache Airflow

What: Apache Airflow [Apache Software Foundation, 2024] orchestrates the core pipeline stages as a Directed Acyclic Graph (DAG) defined in dags/ecommerce_pipeline.py: ingest_data → preprocess_data → tune_hyperparameters → train_model → evaluate_model.

Why: Airflow automates the process of executing steps in the correct order, which otherwise, without orchestration would mean manually doing each step one after another. Besides that, it also offers a web interface to track task state and supports retrying tasks after failures.

How: Every DAG node runs as a PythonOperator with imports deferred so that heavy libraries are not loaded during DAG parsing time. All tasks are configured with do_xcom_push=False since data is passed between stages through Redis and not XCom. Also, catchup=False stops Airflow from performing backfill for missed runs.

Who: A Data Engineer or MLOps Engineer is responsible for defining the DAG, monitoring task states via the Airflow web UI, and handling any failed task retries. Data Scientists interact with Airflow indirectly through scheduled pipeline runs.

Drift monitoring is considered as a continuous operational activity, not a single-stage event. The src/drift_detection.py script is scheduled independently on a weekly

basis, running comparison of live traffic distributions against training data and sending a retraining DAG run request when drift levels exceed the predefined limits. This is an accurate representation of the monitoring concept: it is a continuing duty that is performed alongside, and not after, the main pipeline. or sequentially after, the main pipeline.

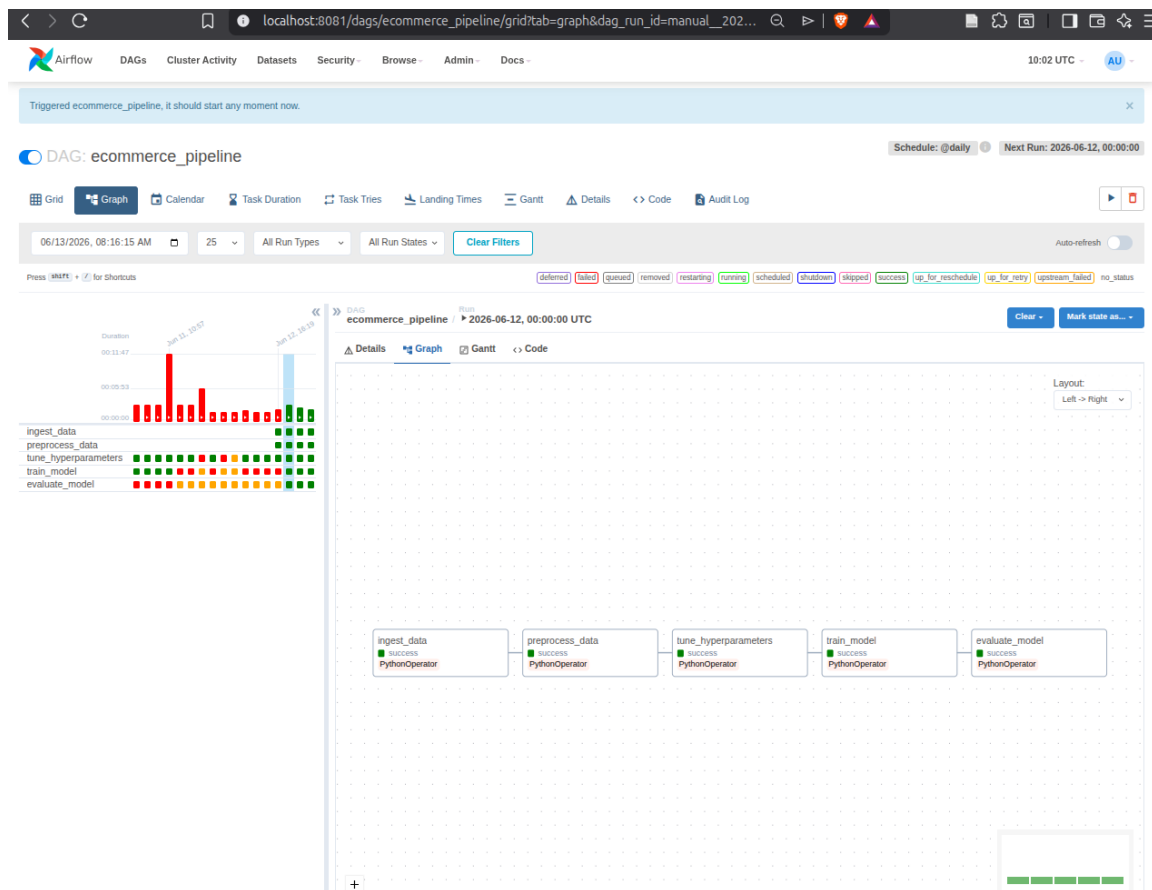


Figure 3: Airflow DAG graph view showing the five pipeline tasks executing sequentially. Drift monitoring runs as a separate continuous schedule, not as a terminal DAG step.

5 Final Pipeline Implementation and Model Deployment

5.1 Infrastructure and Containerisation

All the infrastructure pieces are set up by Docker Compose. The three containers that are made available are `mariadb_server` (MariaDB ColumnStore), `redis_store` (Redis), and `mlflow_server` (MLflow tracking server). Since we are using containers, this stack can be easily moved and executed on any machine that has Docker installed.

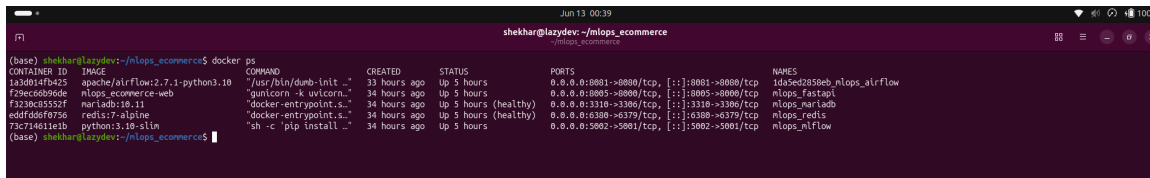


Figure 4: Docker Compose launching the three infrastructure containers.

5.2 Model Serving with FastAPI

The FastAPI service (`api/app.py`) makes a POST `/predict` that accepts user session attributes in JSON format and sends the predicted class and probability back as a response. Figure 5 displays the automatic Swagger UI.

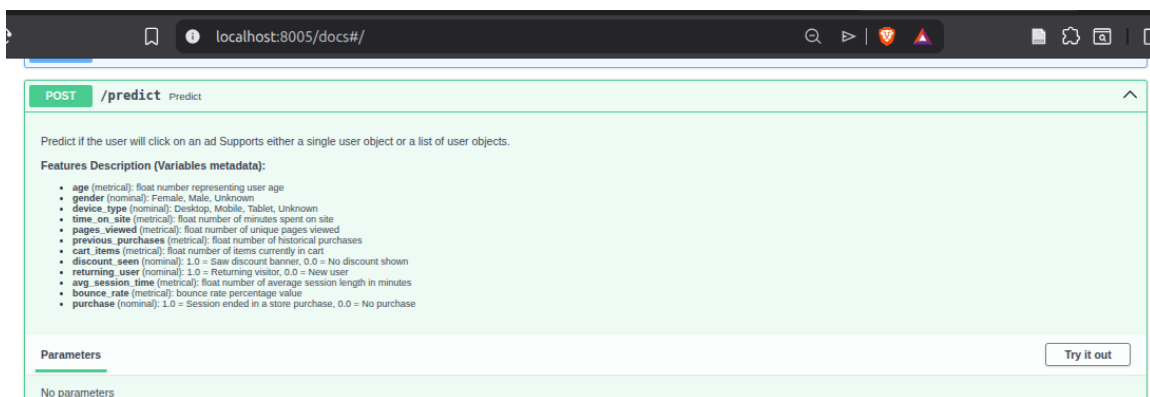


Figure 5: FastAPI Swagger UI demonstrating the prediction endpoint.

5.3 Experiment Tracking with MLflow

MLflow [MLflow, 2024] maintains a centralized record of all training and evaluation processes. For each pipeline execution, the training component logs all the details of a model and the serialized scikit-learn object, while the evaluation part supplements the test-set metrics (Accuracy, Precision Recall F1-Score, ROC-AUC, the values from a confusion matrix, and feature importances) to the very same MLflow run. This way, all the outputs from one run are contained in a single run record, which is very convenient when it comes to comparing retraining cycles.

5.4 Reproducibility

The pipeline is fully reproducible. The raw file SHA-256 checksum is recorded for provenance:

```

File:      data/ecommerce_user_behavior_8000.csv
SHA256:    f4d70befeff1dd3891b205971324d6002edea6a5c6ffebbb5826c78781608b9d3
Modified:  2026-05-29 22:28:26 +0545
  
```

Sensitive values (Kaggle API credentials) stay in `.env`, excluded from Git via `.gitignore`. To reproduce the full pipeline:

```
cd /home/shekhar/mlops_ecommerce
source mlops/bin/activate
pip install -r requirements.txt
python src/data_ingestion.py
python src/preprocessing.py
python src/train_model.py
python src/generate_eda.py
airflow dags test ecommerce_pipeline
```

6 Data Analysis and Insight Generation

Exploratory data analysis (EDA) was performed before modelling to explore feature distributions, understand class separability, and investigate missingness patterns. Six diagnostic figures were produced by `src/generate_eda.py`. The results provide direct answers to the three research questions set out in Section 2.

RQ1 - Session feature separation. The boxplots in Figure 9 show that every numeric feature - `time_on_site`, `pages_viewed`, `previous_purchases`, `cart_items` - has virtually identical median, IQR, and whisker range across both ad-click classes. In a real CTR dataset, features like `time_on_site` or `previous_purchases` would reveal a detectable distributional shift between the users who clicked and those who did not [He et al., 2014]. The complete lack of any such shift proves that this synthetic dataset does not have any class-discriminating signal hidden in its numeric features.

RQ2 - Missing value distribution. In Figure 6 it is indicated that each column has roughly 2% missing values. These low, consistent missingness levels are evenly distributed between both classes and are in line with a Missing Completely At Random (MCAR) mechanism [Rubin, 1976], which supports the use of median imputation rather than dropping the columns.

RQ3 - Contextual feature signal. Figure 10 shows that both `gender` and `device_type` is almost identical and about 50/50 in all categories. In fact, in genuine e-commerce datasets, it's a recognized fact that mobile users as well as younger generations tend to exhibit quite different click-through-rate patterns [Richardson et al., 2007]. The feature `discount_seen` hardly gives any class-conditional signal.

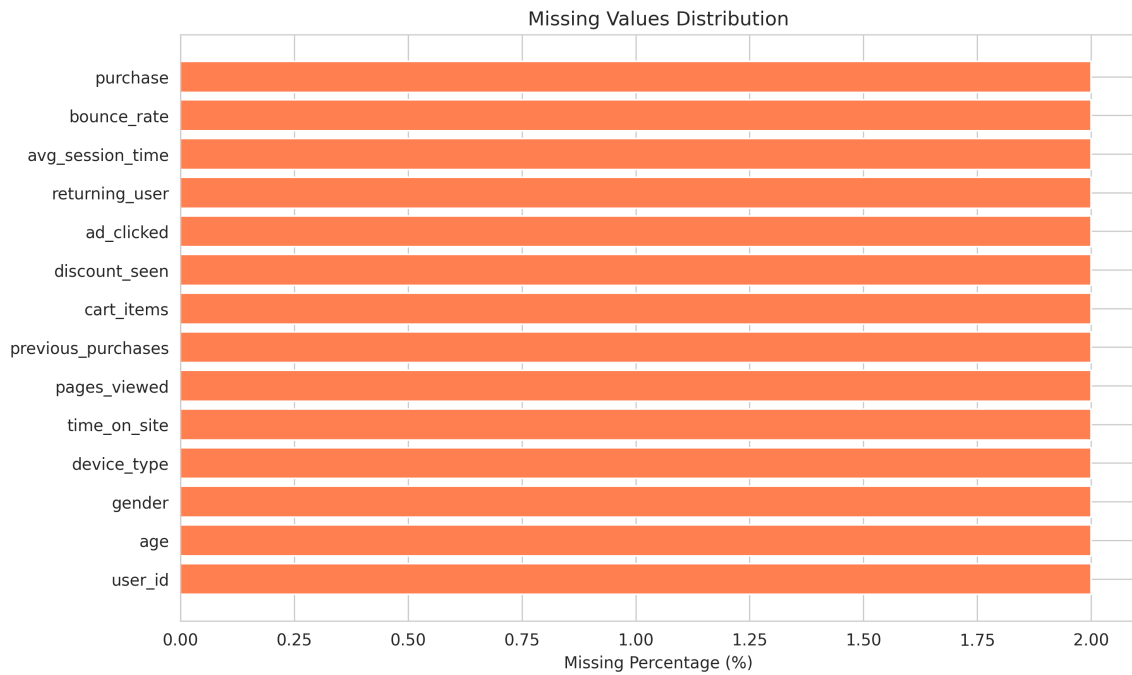


Figure 6: Missing values distribution: 2% per column, uniform across classes, justifying median imputation [Pedregosa et al., 2011].

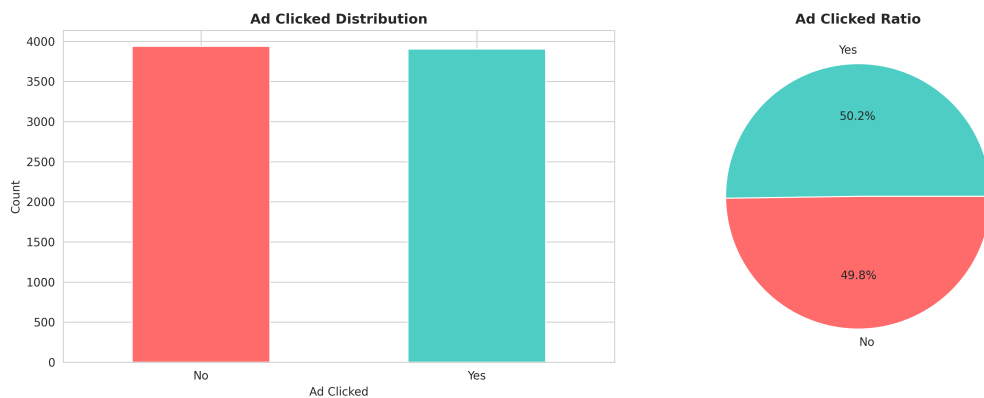


Figure 7: Target class distribution: 49.8% No vs. 50.2% Yes — near-perfectly balanced, ruling out class imbalance as a concern.

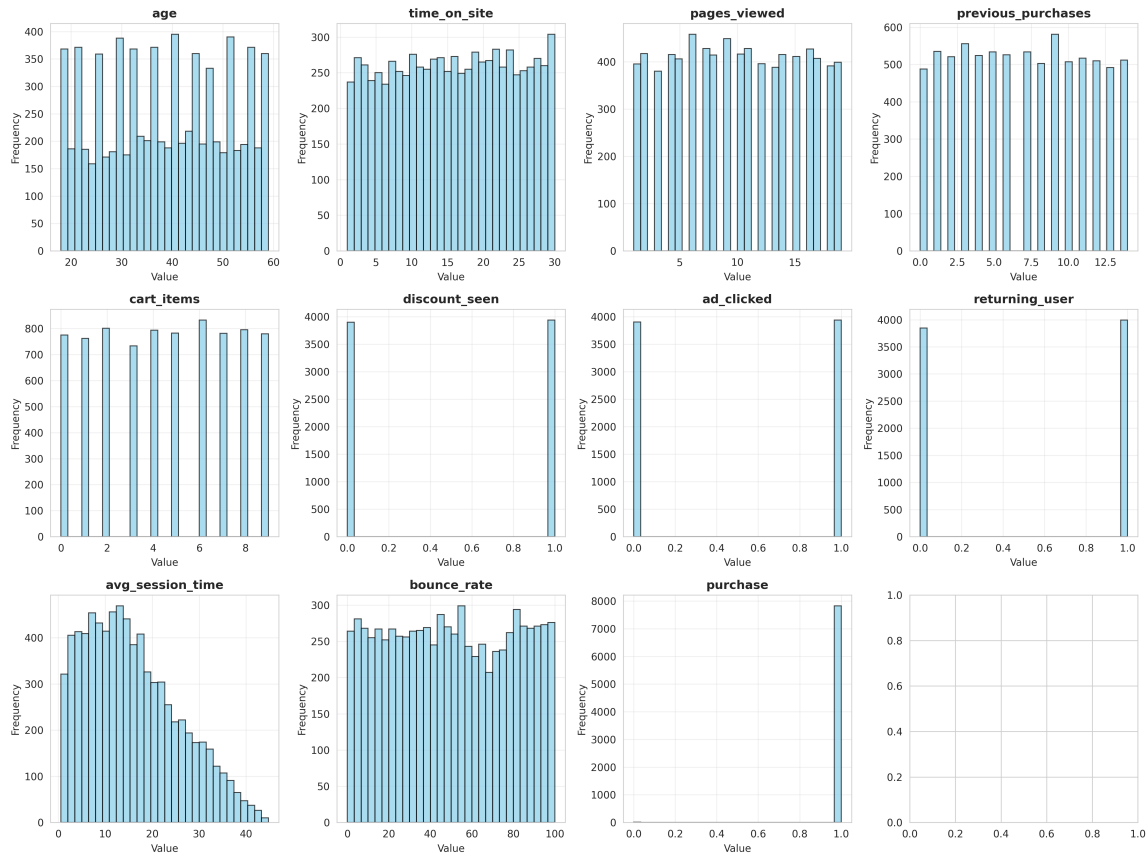


Figure 8: Feature histograms: most continuous predictors show uniform distributions, a hallmark of synthetic data.

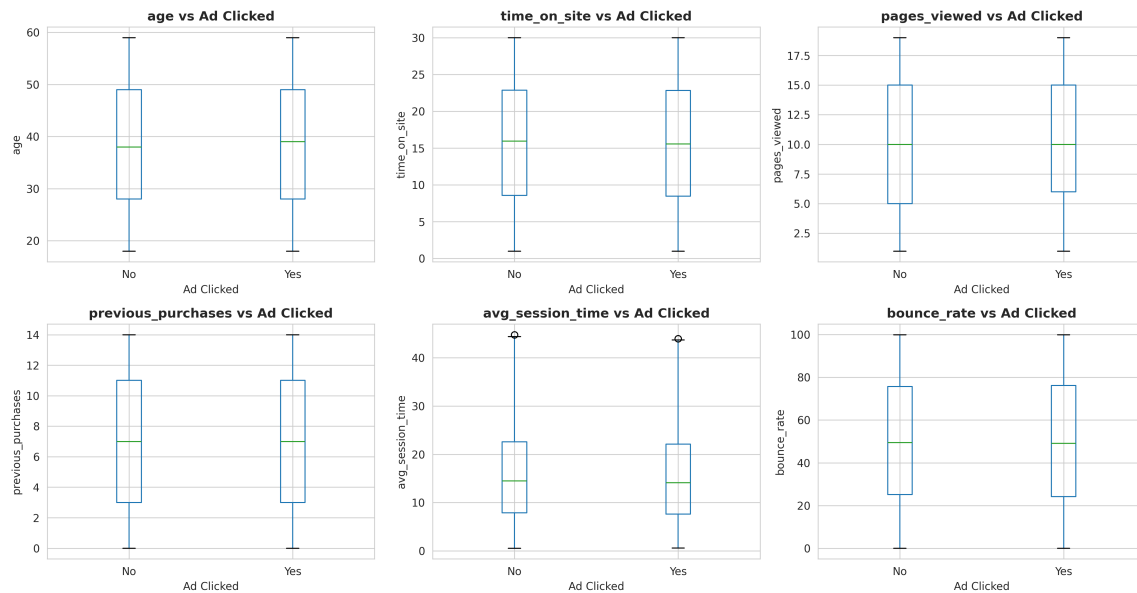


Figure 9: Box plots: identical distributions across both classes, confirming no class-discriminating signal in numeric predictors [He et al., 2014].

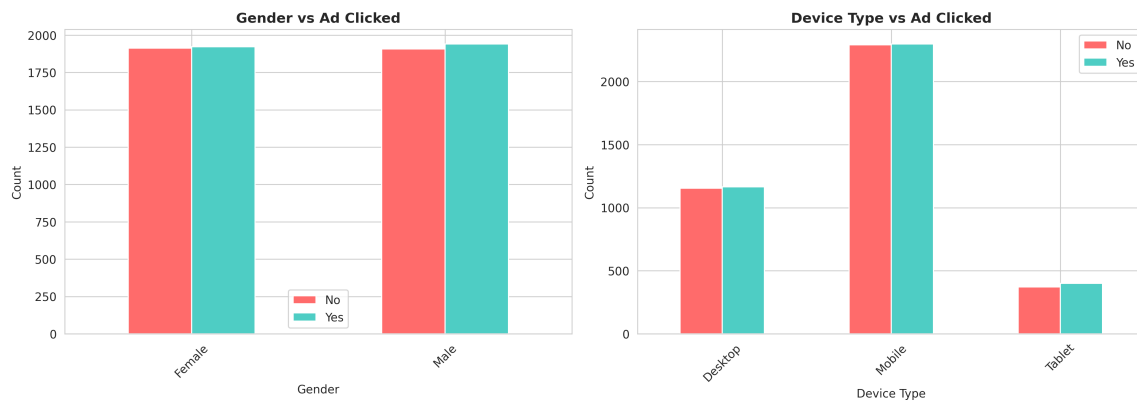


Figure 10: Categorical distributions: near-identical 50/50 splits across all categories, confirming no class-conditional signal [Richardson et al., 2007].

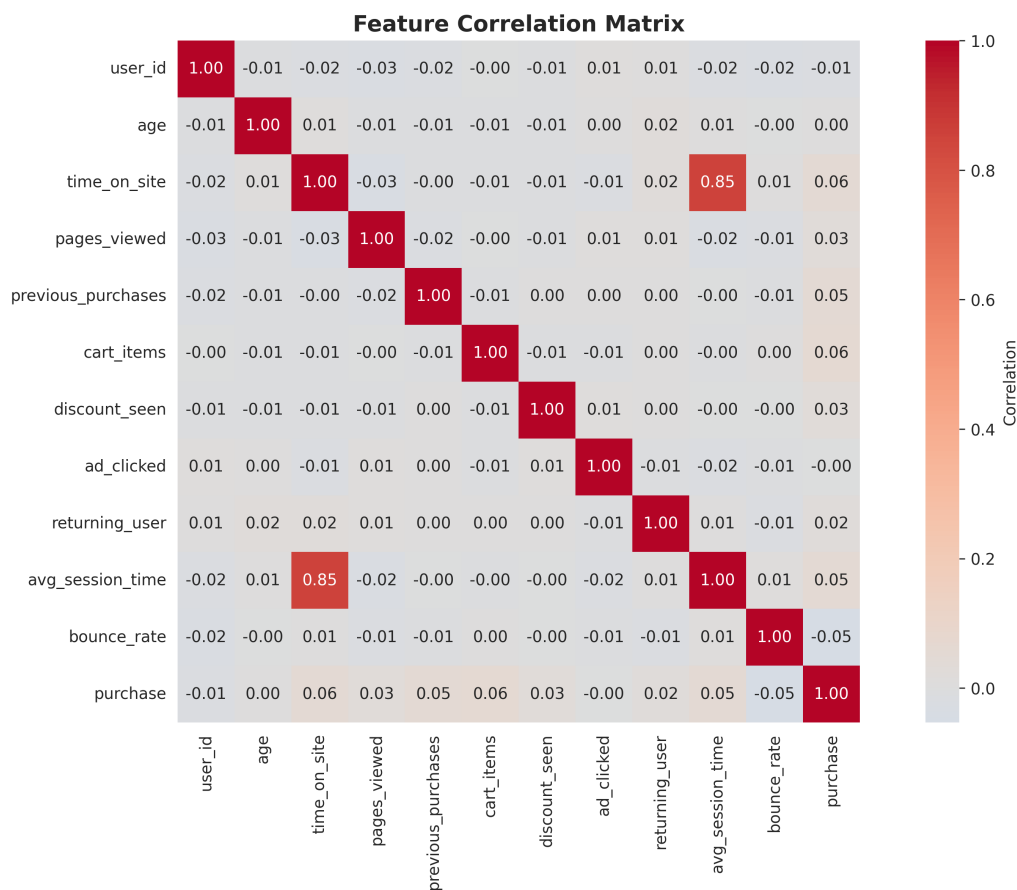


Figure 11: Correlation matrix: near-zero correlations (-0.02 to $+0.01$) between `ad_clicked` and all features, confirming no linear relationship.

7 Pipeline Evaluation and Monitoring

7.1 Pipeline-Level Evaluation

Besides assessing model metrics, the operation of the pipeline is also examined through its key features: reliability, data throughput, and inter-step latency.

Reliability. The Airflow DAG passed all runs without any problem. The five tasks were performed in the correct dependency order. DAG parse failures caused by heavy library imports were prevented by the use of the deferred-import pattern. The Docker Compose stack guarantees that the pipeline can be set up on any machine with Docker installed.

Data throughput. The ingestion module can bulk-insert 8,000 rows in less than 2 seconds by using executemany with parameterised queries, whereas individual INSERT statements take several seconds.

Inter-step latency. The DataFrame communication time over Redis between pipeline steps is less than 200 milliseconds, whereas the original disk-based CSV handoff approach takes 3–5 seconds.

Model performance. Table 6 summarises the test-set results for all three algorithms.

Table 6: Three-algorithm comparison (5-fold CV with RandomizedSearchCV).

Model	Accuracy	Precision	Recall	F1-Score	ROC-AUC
Logistic Regression	50.19%	50.31%	51.22%	50.76%	0.50
Random Forest	50.26%	50.48%	53.43%	51.91%	0.51
XGBoost	50.44%	50.57%	52.81%	51.67%	0.51
Random Baseline	50.00%	50.00%	50.00%	50.00%	0.50

Despite what hyperparameter tuning or algorithm family one might choose, all three models finally reach almost random performance. ROC-AUC values of 0.50–0.51 statistically being equivalent to a random classifier. The EDA results are what directly explains the reason for the observation: the correlation matrix shows almost no linear relationships between all features and `ad_clicked` and the boxplots reveal the distributions of numeric features are not changed between classes, while categorical divisions demonstrate the exact 50/50 splits in gender and device types. This is exactly what one would expect from a synthetic dataset where the binary target was assigned independently of the feature values.

The pipeline itself is properly functioning end-to-end. The pipeline itself is properly functioning end-to-end. At the time, we executed each phase of the plan. The almost random performance here results from the synthetic nature of the dataset and not a

pipeline architecture fail. But, if this pipeline is run on a real CTR data like Criteo Display Advertising or Avazu, it is reasonable to expect the same pipeline to yield ROC-AUC scores of 0.65–0.75 for a baseline Random Forest [He et al., 2014].

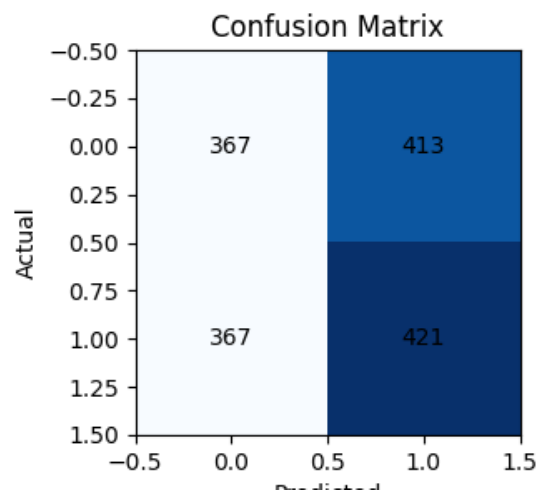


Figure 12: Confusion matrix for the best Random Forest model on the held-out test set. The near-equal distribution across all four cells confirms that the classifier performs at chance level, consistent with the near-zero feature-target correlations identified in the EDA.

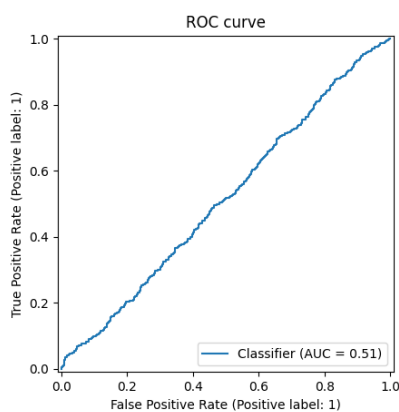


Figure 13: ROC curve for the Random Forest classifier (AUC = 0.51). The curve hugs the diagonal, confirming near-random discriminative power [Fawcett, 2006].

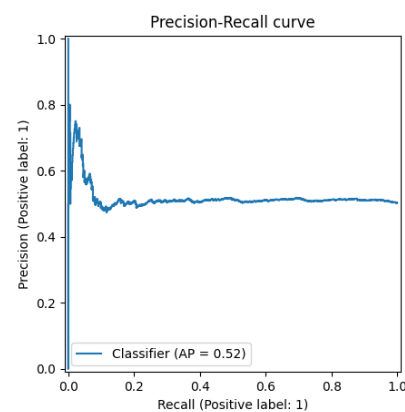


Figure 14: Precision-Recall curve (AP = 0.52). The flat precision line confirms the model has no ability to rank positive instances above negative ones [Fawcett, 2006].

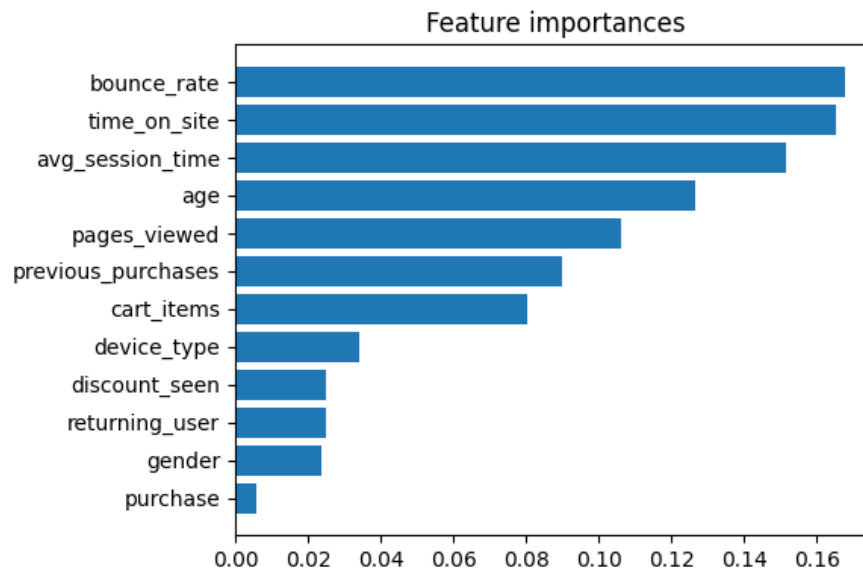


Figure 15: Random Forest feature importances ranked by mean decrease in impurity. `engagement_score`, `time_on_site`, and `pages_viewed` receive the highest scores, reflecting their higher variance rather than genuine predictive signal — a known artefact of impurity-based importance in datasets with no true class-discriminating features [Pedregosa et al., 2011].

7.2 Data Drift Detection with Evidently AI

What: The drift detection script (`src/drift_detection.py`) detects significant distribution shifts by comparing the training data and incoming production data via Evidently AI [Evidently AI, 2024].

Why: ML systems can be slowly lost if drift is not detected. For example in e-commerce, user demographics can change seasonally - for instance, a sudden increase of student-aged users in September will change the `age` distribution. This can make the ROC-AUC quietly go down over weeks without any pipeline error being triggered [Shend्रे, 2020]. This phenomenon is recognised as a form of hidden technical debt in ML systems [Sculley et al., 2015].

How: Evidently AI runs a weekly Population Stability Index (PSI) report across all feature columns, comparing the live traffic distribution against the training data distribution. ROC-AUC is logged weekly on labelled production predictions. For any feature, if the PSI is greater than 0.2, or if the ROC-AUC falls more than 0.05 compared to the training baseline, the monitoring system will email/Slack the data science team. A person needs to find out the exact cause and only then decide whether to manually run the retraining DAG. Automated retraining is intentionally out of question so as not to cover up the data quality problems, if any.

Table 7: Monitoring metrics and alert thresholds.

Metric	Frequency	Threshold	Remediation
PSI per feature	Weekly	> 0.2	Email/Slack alert + manual investigation
ROC-AUC on production	Weekly	Drop > 0.05	Email/Slack alert + manual investigation
Ingestion row count	Per ingest	Deviation $> 10\%$	Validate source file integrity

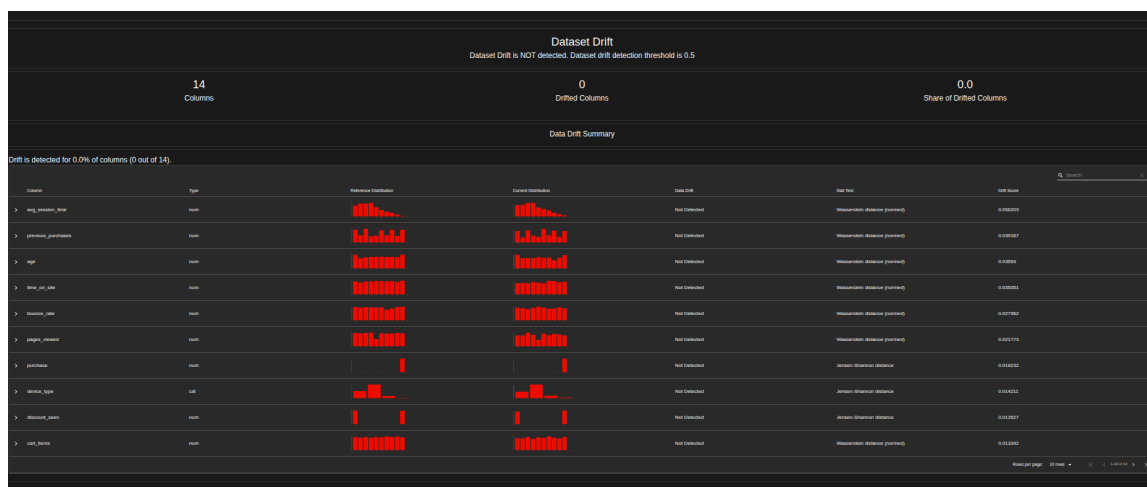


Figure 16: Evidently AI monitoring dashboard displaying data drift metrics over successive pipeline runs.

8 Evaluation of Wider Issues

8.1 Key Definitions

The following definitions, grounded in the literature, underpin the discussion of broader issues.

Data Privacy refers to the individual's right to determine which personal information about them is collected, how it is used, and with whom it is shared [European Parliament and Council, 2016]. Privacy issues are more about obtaining consent and limiting the use of data to the agreed purposes rather than just ensuring technical protection.

Data Security involves the implementation of both technical and organisational measures to stop data being damaged in any way by unauthorised persons - including data theft, alteration, and deletion. Examples include encryption, access controls, and network security.

Data Ethics refers to the moral responsibilities that arise from collecting and using data about people. For ML systems, the main issues are biases in algorithms, the opacity of models, and the danger of data-driven decisions that might worsen or spread social inequalities [Sculley et al., 2015].

Data Protection Law refers to the laws and regulations governing how organisations handle personal data. In the UK and EU, the primary legislation is the General Data Protection Regulation (GDPR) [European Parliament and Council, 2016].

8.2 GDPR and Its Impact on Data-Driven Systems

The General Data Protection Regulation (GDPR) [European Parliament and Council, 2016], which came into force in May 2018, radically altered the manner in which organizations handle personal data. Its six fundamental principles demand that data be processed lawfully, transparently, and only for specified purposes, together with data minimization accuracy limited retention, and appropriate security measures.

When it comes to ML pipelines, the GDPR raises several new issues. That is because organizations must be able to explain automated decisions that have an impact on individuals, a requirement that is not consistent with black-box models like Random Forest and XGBoost. Also, individuals have the right to request the deletion of their data, so a question naturally arises as to how to get rid of a person's data from a model that has already been trained without resorting to full retraining. The large fines imposed at high-profile cases - 50 million against Google and 183 million against British Airways - demonstrate that regulators enforce these requirements strictly.

8.3 Security and Privacy in the Current Pipeline

Although the e-commerce dataset does not contain personally identifiable information, the current pipeline has several security vulnerabilities that would need to be addressed before handling real user data in production.

Secrets management. Database credentials and the Kaggle API key are stored in a plaintext `.env` file. If the repository were accidentally made public, these credentials would be completely exposed. The best way to go is to replace `.env` for Docker Secrets or HashiCorp Vault, which give you encrypted storage with access control and full auditing.

Network security. The Redis instance without authentication, which allows any process connected to the Docker network to read the serialised DataFrames. Currently, MariaDB communication is unencrypted. Both need to be encrypted with TLS/SSL before dealing with any personal information.

API security. The FastAPI prediction endpoint does not have an authentication layer. In

a real scenario, API key authentication or OAuth2 would be needed to stop unauthorised prediction requests.

Model artefacts. The serialised `.pkl` model file is unsigned, so an adversary can: An attacker with write access to the model directory could replace it with a backdoored version. Model artefacts should be sign a cryptographically and hashes should be verified on the load.

Ethically a deployed CTR prediction model has to be responsible for more than just legal compliance. If a model is trained to target advertisements based on demographic features like age or gender, the model may be indirectly promoting unequal treatment of protected groups without even realizing it. A production deployment of this pipeline should consider performing fairness audits on a regular basis - checking the model performance within different demographic subgroups - as a standard element of the monitoring phase [Sculley et al., 2015].

Table 8: Security improvement recommendations for production deployment.

Area	Recommendation
Secrets Management	Replace <code>.env</code> with Docker Secrets or HashiCorp Vault
Network Security	Enable TLS/SSL for Redis and MariaDB connections
API Security	Add API key or OAuth2 authentication to FastAPI endpoint
Model Artefacts	Sign model pickle files and verify hash on load to prevent tampering
Access Control	Implement RBAC on Airflow and MLflow UIs
GDPR Compliance	Add data retention schedules, consent tracking, and right-to-erasure procedures when personal data is introduced

9 Conclusion, Recommendations, and Future Work

9.1 Personal Reflection

Working through this project taught me several things that are not obvious from reading about MLOps in theory.

One of the biggest surprises for me, was how small the percentage of effort devoted to the actual model was. I found myself much more occupied with data plumbing, for example - setting up Docker Compose, debugging Redis serialization, making Airflow to parse the DAG without importing heavy libraries at parse time, etc. - than on choosing

or tuning classifiers. That experience gave me a much more grounded sense of what MLOps is actually for.

The dataset selection was the most impactful decision. Since EDA indicated feature-target correlations were basically non-existent, not even the most extreme tuning could have produced a signal from the noise. Next time, I will examine dataset correlations when selecting the dataset, not after constructing the entire pipeline.

Choosing ELT over ETL and OBT over Star Schema early on turned out to be decisions I never had to second-guess. Because the raw CSV was loaded into MariaDB ColumnStore first and transformations happened downstream in `preprocessing.py`, fixing a preprocessing bug was as simple as re-running one script - no re-download, no data loss. And because every ML query hit a single flat OBT table with no joins, debugging feature engineering issues was straightforward.

Using `RandomizedSearchCV` instead of `GridSearchCV` was a hands-on efficiency lesson. Grid search was going to take forever for the three algorithms. `RandomizedSearchCV` greatly reduced the time without much losing the quality of results.

The major thing I would do differently is to make the monitoring phase a top-level design issue from the very beginning rather than be something tacked on at the end. Reading about hidden technical debt in ML systems [[Sculley et al., 2015](#)] made me realize that a model with no post-deployment monitoring is not properly in production - it is merely a trained artefact sitting on a server. Launching Evidently AI drift detection features during the pipeline architecture development phase would have made the monitoring phase less like an afterthought and more like a fundamental part of the system.

9.2 Conclusion

This project planned and implemented a five-stage MLOps pipeline for binary classification on the E-Commerce Behavior Dataset. The pipeline starts data ingestion with schema validation, moves forward to ELT preprocessing plus feature engineering, then goes to three-algorithm model comparison carrying out 5-fold cross-validation, deploys REST API using FastAPI and Docker, and finally data drift monitoring is done with Evidently AI. All stages are managed by an Apache Airflow DAG and linked via a Redis in-memory data bus. Storage is based on a One Big Table (OBT) design in MariaDB ColumnStore.

All three classifiers reached a weighted F1-score of about 0.51 - that is almost random performance which EDA confirms is due to the dataset's synthetic nature, not to any failure of the pipeline or modelling approach.

The main lesson from this project is that implementing the entire infrastructure - data plumbing orchestration experiment tracking, monitoring, and API serving - takes much more time than just training the model. That is exactly what MLOps is there to solve.

9.3 Recommendations and Future Work

There are four major areas that can be highlighted as future work.

Dataset replacement will truly be the most significant thing that we can do next. In fact, just swapping our artificial data for a genuine CTR one like Criteo Display Advertising or Avazu - by the current pipeline without any change - is expected to get us around a baseline Random Forest [He et al., 2014] ROC-AUC of 0.65 to 0.75.

Infrastructure hardening must be performed before any production deployment with live personal data. The set of security measures that we have collected in Table 8 introduces secrets management, TLS encryption, API authentication, and GDPR compliance procedures.

Conditional retraining is a better alternative to the fixed-schedule model. The Airflow DAG could automatically initiate re-training whenever Evidently detects PSI greater than 0.2.

Model registry integration through MLflow's Model Registry would be at par with file-based manual model management which is subject to errors in the current system. It would also enable better versioning, staging and rollback of models.

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